The Small Brown Planthopper (*Laodelphax striatellus*): A Comprehensive Review of Biology, Impact, Management, and Data Resources

I. Executive Summary

The Small Brown Planthopper (SBPH) *Laodelphax striatellus* Fallén, 1826 is one of the most economically significant insect pests affecting rice and other cereal crops across Asia, Europe, and parts of the Palearctic region[1]. Although the insect itself causes direct feeding damage through sap extraction, its greatest threat to agriculture comes from its role as an efficient vector of multiple plant viruses, including rice stripe virus (RSV), rice black-streaked dwarf virus (RBSDV), barley yellow striate mosaic virus (BYSMV), and northern cereal mosaic virus (NCMV)[2]. These viral pathogens lead to chlorosis, stunted growth, malformed grain, and severe yield losses, often rendering crops unmarketable. Because these viruses are persistently transmitted and can be passed from one generation of planthoppers to the next, infestations can result in rapid and widespread disease outbreaks[2].

Populations of SBPH can increase quickly under favorable environmental conditions, especially in dense planting systems with high humidity and abundant host plants[3]. Feeding activity produces visible symptoms such as leaf discoloration, wilting, and blackened tissue[1], while honeydew excretions promote the growth of sooty mold that further reduces photosynthesis and crop productivity[4]. In rice systems, infestations can damage plants from the early vegetative stage through grain maturity, reducing pollination efficiency and grain fill.

The economic impact of SBPH is substantial due to both direct yield losses and the additional costs associated with pest and disease management. Outbreaks have been particularly damaging in East and Southeast Asia, where rice is a primary food source and export commodity. The absence of curative treatments for the viruses transmitted by SBPH makes early prevention and vector control essential for maintaining crop yields and protecting farmer livelihoods.

Effective management of SBPH requires an integrated pest management (IPM) strategy that combines cultural practices, biological controls, and judicious use of insecticides[4]. Recommended practices include field sanitation, removal of alternate host weeds, balanced fertilizer use, optimized planting density, and targeted chemical applications timed to vulnerable insect life stages. The use of selective insecticides and resistance management strategies is critical to preserve natural enemies and prevent the development of pesticide resistance[5].

Continued research on SBPH biology, virus transmission mechanisms, population dynamics, and environmentally sustainable control methods is essential for long-term management. Strengthening monitoring programs, improving farmer education, and developing region-specific management strategies will be key to mitigating the impact of this pest and safeguarding global cereal production systems.

II. Introduction

The SBPH is a major agricultural pest that threatens rice and other cereal crops throughout Asia and parts of Europe[1]. As a phloem-feeding insect, it directly damages plants by extracting sap from leaves and stems[2], causing symptoms such as wilting, chlorosis, and reduced plant vigor. However, its most significant impact

comes from its role as a vector of several destructive plant viruses, including rice stripe virus and rice black-streaked dwarf virus[2], which can cause severe yield losses and long-term field infestations.

Rice is one of the most important staple crops in the world, producing nearly 800 million metric tons annually[6] and serving as a primary food source for billions of people. Because of this, pests that affect rice production have serious implications for global food security and agricultural economies. Infestations of SBPH have been reported across major rice-growing regions[1], where the insect's strong migratory ability and rapid reproduction allow populations to spread quickly and reach damaging levels.

Environmental conditions, particularly temperature and seasonal climate patterns, play a key role in the distribution and survival of SBPH. The insect typically overwinters in the nymph stage, making winter temperature a critical factor influencing population survival and expansion in the following growing season. As climate patterns shift, the geographic range and severity of infestations are expected to change, increasing the need for effective monitoring and management strategies[7].

Because there is no cure for the viral diseases transmitted by this pest once plants are infected, controlling SBPH populations is essential to preventing outbreaks. Current management approaches rely on integrated pest management (IPM) strategies that combine cultural practices, biological control, and carefully timed insecticide applications[4].

III. Biology and Identification of the Small Brown Planthopper

Life Cycle: Egg, Nymph, and Adult Stages

The life cycle of the Small Brown Planthopper (SBPH) follows a typical hemipteran progression, consisting of egg, nymph, and adult stages[1]. Under favorable environmental conditions, the species can complete a generation in as little as 18 days, though cooler temperatures may extend development to around 30 days[3]. Eggs are laid within tender plant tissues, such as leaf sheaths or ventral midribs, usually in small groups of two to twelve arranged in orderly rows, providing protection and access to nutrients for the developing embryos. Nymphs pass through five instars, gradually growing from about 0.6 mm to 3.0 mm, developing wing pads in later instars, and in some regions entering diapause to survive cold periods[7]. Adults exist in two forms; macropterous, or long-winged, capable of dispersal, and brachypterous, or short-winged, focused on reproduction, and live for 18 to 30 days, during which females lay between 70 and 180 eggs. The combination of rapid development, multiple overlapping generations per season, and reliance on suitable host plants allows populations to increase quickly, creating a dynamic challenge for effective management in cereal crops.

Physical Description and Distinguishing Features

- **Eggs:** The life cycle begins when females lay eggs in tender plant tissue, such as leaf sheaths near the base or along the ventral midribs of leaf blades[1]. Eggs are small, approximately 1.0 mm long, banana-shaped, and transparent-white. They are usually laid in small groups of two to twelve, often arranged in one or two straight rows. This careful placement protects the eggs from environmental hazards and predators while providing access to nutrients within the plant tissue. Under favorable conditions, such as 25°C, eggs typically develop over about nine days[3], though cooler or warmer conditions can extend or shorten this period. The eggs' small size, pale color, and strategic placement make them identifiable to observers and are critical for the survival of the next generation.

- **Nymphs:** After hatching, planthoppers enter the nymph stage, which consists of five instars, or developmental stages, separated by molting. Nymphs initially appear cottony white and are extremely small, around 0.6 mm in length. As they progress through the instars, their coloration gradually darkens to a light brown or purple-brown, and grow to roughly 3.0 mm by the fifth instar. While they resemble miniature adults, nymphs lack fully developed wings, although wing pads become prominent during the fourth and fifth instars[2]. In temperate regions, nymphs in the third or fourth instar may enter diapause, a form of dormancy that allows them to survive cold winter conditions[7]. Nymphs feed on plant sap and move slowly across plant surfaces, exhibiting behaviors that prepare them for their eventual transition into adulthood.
- **Adults:** Adults measure between 2.5 and 5.0 mm and have dark brown to black bodies with distinctive black markings between the facial ridges, known as carinae[1]. They exist in two forms: macropterous, or long-winged, which are capable of migration to new locations, and brachypterous, or short-winged, which are more focused on reproduction. Adult lifespan ranges from 18 to 30 days[3], during which females lay between 70 and 180 eggs, completing the life cycle. Adults are highly mobile compared to nymphs and are readily identifiable by their size, coloration, and wing forms. Their ability to reproduce and disperse ensures the continuation of the species and highlights their ecological role as a significant pest in cereal crops.

Table 1: Key Characteristics of Small Brown Planthopper Life Stages

Life Stage	Size (approx.)	Color/Appearance	Key Distinguishing Features	Typical Location
Eggs	1mm	White, almost transparent, Elongated (banana shaped)	Laid in masses (60-200)	Primarily in the lower leaf sheaths or midribs of host plants such as rice, wheat, and maize.
Nymph (1st Instar)	0.6mm	Creamy white to pale, oval shaped	Eyes appear as orange or red spots	Find these tiny white specks clustered at the base of the host plant, usually tucked into the moist crevices of the leaf sheaths.
Nymph (2nd –4th Instar)	0.8mm-2.3mm	White to pale brown	Progressively darken and increase in size, wing pads begin to develop	Primarily congregate on the lower parts of the stems and leaf sheaths
Nymph (5th Instar)	2.5mm-3mm	Dark brown- purple brown	Extended wing pads, dark brown markings on the head	Primarily congregate on the lower parts of the stems and leaf sheaths
Adult (Short-Winged)	2.5mm-3.3mm	Dark brown to black, females can be paler. Back of head is typically black and shiny with three longitudinal ridges	Larger and heavier abdomen, incomplete forewings	Found almost exclusively at the base of the plant, specifically on the lower leaf sheaths.

Adult (Long-Winged)	3.5mm-4.5mm	Dark brown to black, back of head is typically black and shiny with three longitudinal ridges	The wings are transparent and glass-like with dark brown veins and a distinct dark spot on the outer edge of the forewings, they extend well beyond the abdomen	Most likely on upper plant parts, including upper leaves and stems

Host Plants and Feeding Behavior

The SBPH feeds primarily on cereal and grass hosts, with major cultivated hosts including rice, wheat, and corn, as well as alternative grass hosts that sustain populations between cropping cycles. Eggs are deposited within the midrib of leaf blades in clusters of 4–10[1], allowing newly hatched nymphs immediate access to vascular tissues for feeding. Both nymphs and adults are phloem feeders, inserting their piercing-sucking mouthparts into plant tissue to extract sap from the phloem. This behavior disrupts the plant's nutrient transport system and results in physiological stress to the host. During feeding, the insects excrete honeydew, which promotes the growth of sooty mold on plant surfaces and can interfere with photosynthesis and pollination[4]. Populations often begin with immigrating winged adults that colonize new crops, lay eggs, and produce subsequent generations, including wingless forms that remain within the field[1]. When plant density is high or conditions favor reproduction, planthopper populations increase rapidly[3], intensifying feeding pressure on host plants and increasing the likelihood of virus transmission. Because SBPH can migrate to grasses or newly planted crops after harvest, its feeding activity and host utilization enable it to persist across seasons and continually reinfest agricultural systems

IV. Crop Damage and Economic Impact

The SBPH is one of the most significant insect vectors of plant viruses affecting cereal crops. It transmits multiple viruses in a persistent, propagative manner[2], meaning the viruses are ingested during feeding, move from the insect gut into the hemolymph, and ultimately reach the salivary glands where they can be transmitted to new host plants during subsequent feeding[6]. These viruses can replicate within the insect vector and are retained for long periods, making SBPH a highly efficient transmitter of plant pathogens. Virus transmission typically occurs when both nymphs and adults feed on phloem sap, and the dual damage caused by direct feeding and virus infection leads to severe reductions in crop productivity. The most economically important viruses vectored include rice stripe virus (RSV), rice black-streaked dwarf virus (RBSDV), maize rough dwarf virus (MRDV), northern cereal mosaic virus (NCMV), and barley yellow striate mosaic virus (BYSMV[2], all of which affect major cereal crops such as rice, wheat, maize, barley, and related grasses.

A. Rice Striped Virus (RSV)

The rice stripe virus is one of the most destructive diseases of rice in East Asia and is transmitted exclusively by SBPH[2]. The primary host is rice, although RSV can also infect wheat, barley, oats, foxtail millet, and several weed species that act as reservoir hosts. Infected plants exhibit chlorosis, discontinuous yellow striping on leaves, necrosis, and severe stunting, particularly when infection occurs at early growth stages. Early infection often results in plant death or complete yield failure, whereas later infection produces milder stunting but still reduces productivity[2]. The RSV is not mechanically transmitted in nature and depends entirely on the planthopper vector for spread. The virus can replicate both in host plants and within the insect vector, and

differences in symptom expression have been observed depending on whether the virus originated from the insect or the plant[7]. Large-scale outbreaks have caused substantial agricultural losses, with documented cases affecting millions of hectares of rice fields and reducing yields by up to 40 percent in heavily infested regions[2].

B. Rice Black-Streaked Dwarf Virus (RBSDV)

The rice black-streaked dwarf virus is another major pathogen transmitted by SBPH. The virus has a segmented double-stranded RNA genome and is transmitted in a persistent-propagative manner similar to RSV. The RBSDV infects rice, maize, and wheat, causing severe stunting, darkened or thickened leaves, and characteristic black-streaked or waxy swellings along plant veins[6]. Infected plants frequently fail to produce normal panicles or grain heads, leading to substantial yield losses. In wheat systems, RBSDV infection results in extreme dwarfing, reduced or absent spikes, and overall plant decline[6]. The virus has caused widespread damage in cereal production systems in Asia[9], particularly since the late 2000s, and wheat fields can serve as a reservoir for RBSDV that later spreads to rice crops through migrating planthopper populations[9].

C. Maize Rough Dwarf Virus (MRDV)

The Maize rough dwarf virus primarily infects maize but can also infect wheat and other grasses[2]. Infection causes the formation of small enations (growths) on leaf veins, severe dwarfing, and significant reductions in plant vigor. Early infection in the vegetative growth stage leads to the greatest yield loss, as plants remain stunted and fail to develop normally. The MRDV can be rapidly spread even by relatively low populations of SBPH, making it a highly damaging disease in susceptible corn cultivars. Although incidence in wheat is generally lower, wheat plants may act as reservoir hosts that contribute to virus persistence and spread within cropping systems[2].

D. Northern Cereal Mosaic Virus (NCMV)

The northern cereal mosaic virus is a cytorhabdovirus that infects wheat, barley, oats, and rye, and is transmitted by SBPH in a circulative, propagative manner[8]. The virus possesses a negative-sense RNA genome encoding structural and accessory proteins and is closely related to BYSMV[8]. NCMV infections produce chlorotic spotting, leaf darkening, severe stunting, and poor panicle formation[2], often resulting in malformed grain or reduced yield quality. Historical epidemics in East Asia caused wheat rosette dwarf disease characterized by extreme stunting and reduced head formation[13], although incidence has declined in recent decades due to its relatively narrow host range and vector specificity[13]. Nonetheless, NCMV remains an important pathogen in cereal systems, particularly in regions where vector populations are abundant.

E. Barley Yellow Striate Mosaic Virus (BYSMV)

The barley yellow striate mosaic virus, another cytorhabdovirus transmitted by SBPH[8], infects wheat and other grasses [9] and produces symptoms similar to other cereal viruses. Infected plants display yellowing, yellow striping, and diffuse streaking along leaves[9], often accompanied by stunting and reduced growth. The BYSMV has been reported more recently in certain regions and tends to occur sporadically, but it can still contribute to local epidemics and yield losses. Because BYSMV shares similar symptoms with NCMV, RBSDV, and other cereal viruses, accurate diagnosis in the field is difficult, requiring molecular detection methods to distinguish among infections[9].

Table 2: Key Viruses Associated with the Small Brown Planthopper

Virus	Plant Impacted	Main Geographic Distribution	Damage & Appearance

Rice Stripe Virus (RSV)	Rice (main), wheat, barley, oats, millet, and some weeds	East Asia (China, Japan, Korea, Taiwan)	Yellow stripes on leaves, chlorosis, necrosis, strong stunting, poor panicle formation, and major yield loss if infected early
Rice Black-Streaked Dwarf Virus (RBSDV)	Rice, maize (corn), and wheat	East Asia (especially China)	Severe dwarfing, dark or thickened leaves, black-streaked or waxy swellings on veins, malformed or absent grain heads
Maize Rough Dwarf Virus (MRDV)	Maize (primary), wheat and some grasses	Asia & Europe	Short, stunted plants, rough or raised growths on leaf veins, significant yield reduction if infected early
Northern Cereal Mosaic Virus (NCMV)	Wheat, barley, oats, and rye	East Asia (China, Japan, Korea)	Chlorotic spots, leaf darkening, stunted growth, poor or malformed grain heads, reduced grain quality
Barley Yellow Striate Mosaic Virus (BYSMV)	Wheat, barley, and other cereal grasses	Northern and eastern regions of China and limited distribution in East Asia	Yellowing and yellow stripes on leaves, streaking patterns, stunting, and reduced plant growth

V. Management and Control Strategies

Effective management of the SBPH requires an integrated pest management (IPM) approach that combines cultural, chemical, biological, and physical control methods to reduce both insect populations and virus transmission[4]. Because most crop losses are associated with the viruses vectored by this insect rather than direct feeding damage alone, management strategies focus on suppressing vector populations early in the growing season and preventing the spread of viruliferous individuals[2].

Chemical Control

Chemical control remains one of the primary methods used to manage SBPH in many production systems. Insecticides such as thiamethoxam and other neonicotinoids are commonly used because they are highly effective against piercing-sucking pests and act by disrupting the insect nervous system, leading to paralysis and death[10]. Applications at critical stages such as nursery box treatment at transplanting and targeted field sprays during early plant growth have been shown to significantly reduce vector populations, decrease the percentage of virus-infected plants, and limit yield loss[2]. However, the long term and widespread use of chemical insecticides have led to the development of resistance in SBPH populations to multiple classes of pesticides, including organochlorines, organophosphates, carbamates, pyrethroids, neonicotinoids, and insect growth regulators[10]. Additionally, repeated use of pesticides can create issues related to environmental contamination, food safety, and impacts on beneficial organisms such as pollinators[10]. For this reason, chemical controls should be applied judiciously and rotated among modes of action to slow resistance development[10].

Field Sanitation

Cultural and agronomic practices are essential components of sustainable management. Field sanitation plays a key role in removing alternate host plants such as grasses and weeds that can serve as reservoirs for both the insect and the viruses it transmits[11]. Proper crop spacing and avoiding excessive planting density can reduce humidity and plant stress, which otherwise favor pest buildup[11]. Managing fertilization and avoiding excessive nitrogen inputs also help limit planthopper population growth. Infected plants showing virus symptoms should be removed promptly to reduce sources of infection, and planting schedules may be adjusted to avoid peak periods of planthopper migration and infestation[11].

Biological Control

Biological control can help suppress populations naturally by conserving and encouraging natural enemies. Predatory insects such as lacewings and lady beetles are known to prey on planthoppers and can reduce their population density when not disrupted by excessive pesticide use[11]. Preserving these beneficial organisms is an important element of integrated management programs and contributes to long-term ecological balance within cropping systems[11].

Physical Control

Physical and behavioral control methods provide additional environmentally friendly options. Light trapping technology, which exploits the phototactic behavior of SBPH, has shown strong potential as a non-chemical control strategy[12]. Research has demonstrated that blue–green light sources, particularly around wavelengths near 460 nm, significantly increase attraction and trapping efficiency, especially when light intensity and flash frequency are optimized[12]. These light-based trapping systems can reduce planthopper populations without contributing to pesticide resistance or environmental contamination[12].

Monitoring and Early Detection

Monitoring and early warning systems are critical for effective management. Regular field scouting and surveillance of vector populations enable timely interventions before populations reach damaging levels[13]. Because virus spread is closely linked to vector abundance, controlling planthopper populations early in crop development is the most effective way to prevent widespread infection. Long-term management also includes regional monitoring, quarantine measures, and the development of resistant or tolerant crop varieties to reduce the impact of planthopper-transmitted viruses[13].

VI. Available Datasets & Resources

Several publicly available datasets and online resources support the study and monitoring of the small brown planthopper and the plant viruses it transmits. The Texas Invasives Species Institute (TISI) database provides region-specific records, distribution maps, and management information relevant to invasive species affecting agriculture in Texas[1]. The Global Biodiversity Information Facility (GBIF) offers global occurrence data, allowing researchers to track species distribution and spread patterns over time[14]. Genetic and viral sequence data can be accessed through the National Center for Biotechnology Information (NCBI), which includes genome records for plant viruses such as rice stripe virus and northern cereal mosaic virus[15]. Additionally, the citizen science platform iNaturalist provides user-submitted observations and images that can help with real-world detection, geographic tracking, and training datasets for machine learning applications[16]. Together, these resources offer valuable ecological, genetic, and observational data for research, monitoring, and pest management efforts.

VII. Ongoing Research & Prospects

The continued global impact of the SBPH and the plant viruses it transmits has driven extensive research aimed at developing effective and sustainable management strategies[2]. Like other complex vector–pathogen systems, the interactions between the insect, its host plants, and the viruses it carries create a dynamic and challenging pathosystem with no single “silver bullet” solution[2]. As a result, current research emphasizes integrated approaches that combine biological understanding, technological innovation, and agricultural management practices to reduce crop losses and improve long-term control[4].

Novel Resistance and Control Strategies

A major focus of ongoing research is the development of resistant crop varieties and environmentally friendly control methods. Plant breeders are working to identify and incorporate natural resistance genes in rice, wheat, barley, and maize that reduce susceptibility to viruses such as Rice Stripe Virus and Rice Black-Streaked Dwarf Virus[2]. At the same time, researchers are exploring RNA-based technologies that interfere with virus replication or disrupt planthopper feeding behavior[7], offering a targeted approach that minimizes ecological impact. Biological control strategies, including the use of natural predators and parasitoids, are also being studied as alternatives to heavy reliance on chemical insecticides[11].

Advances in Detection and Monitoring

Improving early detection of both the insect vector and the viruses it spreads remains a key priority. Recent work has focused on developing automated monitoring systems using imaging tools and computer-vision models capable of identifying planthopper infestations and early disease symptoms in crops[13]. These tools are often supported by biodiversity and genomic databases such as the Global Biodiversity Information Facility and the National Center for Biotechnology Information[14] [15], along with observation platforms like iNaturalist[16]. Together, these resources enable large-scale tracking of population trends, geographic spread, and genetic variation, which are essential for building predictive models and early warning systems.

Understanding Vector–Virus–Host Interactions

Another critical research direction involves uncovering the molecular and physiological interactions between the planthopper, the viruses, and host plants[6]. Studies have shown that virus infection can alter feeding behavior, reproduction, and movement patterns of the insect[2], which in turn influences how effectively diseases spread across crop fields. Understanding these interactions at both the cellular and ecological level can help identify weak points in the transmission cycle, leading to more precise and targeted control strategies.

Sustainable Management and Long-Term Outlook

The future of managing the small brown planthopper and its associated diseases lies in integrating multiple strategies into a cohesive, sustainable system[4]. This includes combining resistant crop varieties, improved monitoring technologies, biological control agents, and carefully managed chemical treatments when necessary[11]. Long-term efforts also emphasize international collaboration and data sharing to monitor the spread of both the insect and its viruses across regions[13]. With continued research and innovation, the goal is not only to reduce the economic impact of these diseases but also to provide farmers with practical, environmentally responsible tools for protecting cereal crops and ensuring stable food production.

VIII. Conclusion

The SBPH remains one of the most significant insect pests affecting cereal production in temperate and subtropical agricultural regions. While direct feeding damage contributes to plant stress, chlorosis, and reduced vigor, the primary threat posed by this species stems from its role as an efficient vector of multiple destructive plant viruses. The Rice Stripe Virus, Rice Black-Streaked Dwarf Virus, Maize Rough Dwarf Virus, Northern Cereal Mosaic Virus, and Barley Yellow Striate Mosaic Virus collectively cause severe stunting, leaf discoloration, malformed grain heads, and substantial yield losses across rice, wheat, maize, and barley production systems. Because these viruses are transmitted in a persistent, propagative manner and there is no curative treatment once infection occurs, prevention through effective vector management is essential.

Environmental conditions, particularly temperature and seasonal climate pattern, play a decisive role in population survival, migration, and outbreak severity. As climate variability continues to influence overwintering success and geographic distribution, predictive modeling and long-term monitoring will become increasingly important tools in pest management planning.

Sustainable control of SBPH requires a comprehensive integrated pest management (IPM) strategy that combines cultural practices, biological control, physical methods such as light trapping, and carefully regulated chemical applications. The growing concern over insecticide resistance further underscores the importance of diversified management approaches that minimize environmental impact while maintaining effectiveness.

Continued research into virus–vector interactions, population ecology, and environmentally responsible control strategies will be critical for reducing the long-term impact of this pest. Strengthened surveillance systems, improved farmer education, and coordinated regional management efforts will play a central role in protecting cereal crop productivity. Ultimately, managing the small brown planthopper is not only an issue of pest control but also a matter of safeguarding global food security and agricultural sustainability.

References

1. Texas Invasive Species Institute. "*Laodelphax striatellus* Datasheet." Accessed 2025.
2. Kil, Eui-Joon, and Donghun Kim. "The Small Brown Planthopper (*Laodelphax striatellus*) as a Vector of the Rice Stripe Virus." *Archives of Virology*, December 27, 2022. https://doi.org/10.1002/arch.21992
3. Food and Agriculture Organization of the United Nations. FAOSTAT Statistical Database. Accessed 2025. https://www.fao.org/faostat/.
4. Zhao, Zhengxue, and Xueli Feng. "Predicting the Potential Global Distribution of *Laodelphax striatellus* (Hemiptera: Delphacidae) Under Climate Change: Shifting Patterns and Management Implications." *Agricultural and Forest Entomology*, 2025.
5. Liu, X. D., and A. M. Zhang. "High Temperature Determines the Ups and Downs of Small Brown Planthopper *Laodelphax striatellus* Population." *Insect Science* 20, no. 3 (2013): 385–392.
6. Li, Junmin, Ida Bagus Andika, Jiangfeng Shen, Yuanda Lv, Yongqiang Ji, Liying Sun, and Jianping Chen. "Characterization of Rice Black-Streaked Dwarf Virus- and Rice Stripe Virus-Derived siRNAs in Singly and Doubly Infected Insect Vector *Laodelphax striatellus*." *PLoS ONE*.
7. Zhao, Wan, Zhongtian Xu, Xiaoming Zhang, Meiling Yang, Le Kang, Renyi Liu, and Feng Cui. "Genomic Variations in the 3′-Termini of Rice Stripe Virus in the Rotation Between Vector Insect and Host Plant." *New Phytologist* 219, no. 3 (2018): 1085–1096.
8. Fang, Xiao-Dong, Ji-Hui Qiao, Ying Zang, Qiang Gao, Wen-Ya Xu, Dong-Min Gao, Yi-Zhou Yang, Liang Xie, Ying Wang, and Xian-Bing Wang. "Developing Reverse Genetics Systems of Northern Cereal Mosaic Virus to Reveal Superinfection Exclusion of Two Cytorhabdoviruses in Barley Plants." *Molecular Plant Pathology*.
9. Zhang, Peipei, Yan Liu, Wenwen Liu, Sebastien Massart, and Xifeng Wang. "Simultaneous Detection of Wheat Dwarf Virus, Northern Cereal Mosaic Virus, Barley Yellow Striate Mosaic Virus and Rice Black-Streaked Dwarf Virus in Wheat by Multiplex RT-PCR." *Journal of Virological Methods*.
10. Cai, Yubiao, Tao Dou, Futao Gao, Guanghua Wang, Yachang Dong, and Nan Song. "Insecticide Resistance and Thiamethoxam Sensitivity in *Laodelphax striatellus*." *Journal of Economic Entomology* 115, no. 6 (2022).
11. Dung, B. T., N. V. Sy, L. M. Nam, and H. T. Thuy. "Small BPH and Its Management." Plantwise Factsheets for Farmers. CABI, October 20, 2015.

12. Frontiers in Plant Science. “Phototactic Response of *Laodelphax striatellus* to Monochromatic and Combined LED Light Sources.” *Frontiers in Plant Science* 13 (2022). https://doi.org/10.3389/fpls.2022.905001.
13. Liu, Yan, May Oo Khine, Peipei Zhang, Yumei Fu, and Xifeng Wang. “Incidence and Distribution of Insect-Transmitted Cereal Viruses in Wheat in China from 2007 to 2019.” *Plant Disease*.
14. Global Biodiversity Information Facility (GBIF). Species Occurrence Data for *Laodelphax striatellus*. Accessed 2025. https://www.gbif.org.
15. National Center for Biotechnology Information (NCBI). GenBank Database. Accessed 2025. https://www.ncbi.nlm.nih.gov.
16. iNaturalist. Species Observation Records for *Laodelphax striatellus*. Accessed 2025. https://www.inaturalist.org.